

**A Multifaceted Exploration of Spatial
Openness in Rental Housing: Big Data
Analysis Across Tokyo's 23 Wards**

Yuan Liu

Master of Engineering

Faculty Advisor: Takuya Oki

Tokyo Institute of Science

School of Environment and Society

Department of Architecture and Building Engineering

July 2025

Contents

List of Figures	iv
List of Tables	vi
1 Introduction	2
1.1 Research Background and Motivation	2
1.2 Literature Review and Research Gaps	3
1.2.1 Spatial Openness in Architectural Research	3
1.2.2 Computer Vision and Spatial Analysis	4
1.2.3 Big Data Opportunities and Research Gaps	4
1.3 Primary Research Objectives	5
1.4 Structure of the Thesis	5
2 Methodology	7
2.1 Overview of the LIFULL Real Estate Dataset	7
2.1.1 Dataset Characteristics	7
2.1.2 Data Structure and Availability	8
2.2 Definition of Openness	8
2.3 Data Filtering and Cleaning	10
2.3.1 Multi-Stage Data Filtering Process	10
2.4 Openness Features Extractions	13

2.4.1	Visibility Graph Analysis (VGA) Methodology	13
2.4.2	Architectural Element Ratios	17
3	Results	20
3.1	Temporal Trend of Openness Indicators	20
3.1.1	Pairwise Analysis of Temporal Changes for Each Indicator	22
3.2	Geospatial Distribution of Openness Indicators	26
3.3	Correlation Analysis Among Indicators and with Rent and Others	28
3.4	Predictive Modeling of Rental Prices	31
3.5	Visual Validation of Openness Indicators	36
4	Influence of Age and Geographic Factors	39
4.1	Impact of Building Age on Openness-Impression Relationship	39
4.2	Comparative Analysis Across Geographic Areas	39
4.3	Spatial Visualization and Cluster Analysis	39
5	Correlation Analysis Between Subjective Impressions and Openness	40
5.1	Impression Score Outputs and Interpretation	40
5.2	Correlation Between Openness Features and Subjective Impressions	40
5.3	Case Studies and Visual Comparisons	40
6	Conclusion and Future Work	41
6.1	Summary of Findings and Contributions	41
6.2	Limitations and Sources of Error	41
6.3	Future Research Directions	41
A	An example of an appendix	42
B	Session Protocol	43
C	Software	45

List of Figures

2.1	Example of interior image from the LIFULL dataset.	9
2.2	Example of floorplan image from the LIFULL dataset.	9
2.3	Data filtering and preprocessing pipeline showing the systematic approach to ensuring data quality and consistency across interior images, floor plans, and property specifications. The flowchart illustrates the multi-stage filtering process from raw data collection to the final integrated dataset.	11
2.4	VGA computational workflow demonstrating the step-by-step process from semantic segmentation of floor plans to statistical analysis of spatial connectivity.	16
2.5	Semantic segmentation workflow for architectural element extraction from interior images, showing the process from input image through pixel-wise classification to architectural element ratio calculation.	18
3.1	Temporal trends of openness indicators by construction decade showing (a) 2D openness scores for entire house, (b) 2D visibility scores for living rooms, (c) Standard deviation of 2D openness, and (d) 3D openness indicators (ceiling and window proportions). (***: 0.1%, **: 1%, *:5%, ***:10%)	21
3.2	Geospatial distribution maps showing: (a) Property rent levels, (b) Construction year distribution, (c) Floor area patterns, (d) Living room window ratios, (e) 2D openness for living rooms, and (f) 2D openness for entire houses. . . .	27

3.3	Correlation analysis showing: (a) 2D vs 3D openness indicators, (b) Mean vs standard deviation of 2D openness, (c) Relationships among 3D openness indicators, (d) 2D openness vs impression evaluation scores, and (e) Openness indicators vs rent levels.	29
3.4	Predictive performance and feature importance analysis for rental price prediction using openness indicators. The figure shows R^2 scores and relative importance rankings of different spatial openness measures in determining rental prices.	32
3.5	Predictive performance of openness indicators for rental price prediction showing R^2 scores and feature importance rankings. The model demonstrates the relative contribution of different spatial openness measures to rental price determination.	33
3.6	Correlation matrix and feature importance analysis for the 12 selected openness indicators used in rental price prediction. The heatmap shows inter-feature correlations while the importance scores indicate each feature's contribution to the predictive model.	34
3.7	Predictive performance of with reduced features	37
3.8	Feature importance of the 7 selected features	37

List of Tables

2.1	Sample of LIFULL dataset structure showing key property attributes	8
3.1	One-way ANOVA results for openness indicators across construction decades (n=4,004, 6 groups analyzed).	22
3.2	Pairwise comparisons (Tukey HSD) for mean VGA of whole property across construction decades, showing mean differences, effect sizes, and statistical significance.	23
3.3	Pairwise comparisons (Tukey HSD) for mean VGA of living room across con- struction decades, showing mean differences, effect sizes, and statistical sig- nificance.	24
3.4	Pairwise comparisons (Tukey HSD) for standard deviation of VGA of whole property across construction decades, showing mean differences, effect sizes, and statistical significance.	25
3.5	Pairwise comparisons (Tukey HSD) for window ratio across construction decades, showing mean differences, effect sizes, and statistical significance.	26
3.6	Selected features for rental price prediction model, organized by measurement category and spatial scope.	32
3.7	Variance Inflation Factor (VIF) for multicollinearity assessment, $VIF > 10$: High, $VIF > 5$: Moderate, $VIF < 5$: Low	35

Abstract

Understanding spatial openness in residential housing is important for enhancing living quality and guiding architectural design. This study proposes a multifaceted evaluation method of spatial openness in rental housing by leveraging large-scale data from Tokyo's 23 wards. Visibility Graph Analysis (VGA) is applied to floor plan images to assess two-dimensional spatial connectivity. In addition, semantic segmentation is performed on interior photos to capture three-dimensional openness features such as window ratios and ceiling visibility. The study investigates how openness characteristics vary by geographic location and construction year, identifying spatial and temporal patterns. Finally, it explores the relationship between these openness features and subjective housing preferences, providing insights into how spatial openness influences perceived residential quality.

Acknowledgements

This is a good place to acknowledge those who helped you along the way.

Also please note how LaTeX has put this on a new page as it is a new chapter. No command (apart from starting a new chapter) was needed to do this.

Also note the lack of number on the title, and contrast this to proceeding chapters, the abstract and acknowledgements should be unnumbered, the proceeding chapters should be numbered.

Chapter 1

Introduction

1.1 Research Background and Motivation

Understanding spatial openness in residential housing is fundamental to enhancing living quality and guiding architectural design practices. In urban environments, particularly in densely populated cities like Tokyo, the perception of spatial openness significantly impacts residents' psychological well-being, comfort, and overall satisfaction with their living spaces. Traditional architectural evaluation methods have long relied on basic quantitative metrics such as floor area, room count, and ceiling height to assess spatial quality. However, these conventional indicators fail to capture the nuanced spatial qualities that contribute to the subjective experience of openness in residential environments.

The concept of spatial openness extends beyond mere physical dimensions to encompass the complex interplay between visual connectivity, visibility of interior elements, and so on. In the context of rental housing markets, where prospective tenants make decisions based on limited visual information from online platforms, understanding how spatial openness translates through digital representations becomes increasingly important. The proliferation of online rental platforms has created unprecedented opportunities to analyze large-scale housing data, including interior imagery and floor plans, which can provide insights into

spatial characteristics that were previously difficult to quantify systematically.

Tokyo’s 23 special wards represent a unique data playground for studying spatial openness due to the city’s distinctive urban morphology, diverse architectural styles spanning multiple decades, and the comprehensive digitization of rental housing information, which has always been one of the most populated cities and rental market in the world.

1.2 Literature Review and Research Gaps

1.2.1 Spatial Openness in Architectural Research

The study of spatial openness has been approached from various perspectives within architectural and environmental psychology research. Traditional spatial analysis methods have focused on geometric properties and numerical metrics of building attributes. Space syntax theory, developed by Hillier and Hanson, introduced systematic approaches to understanding spatial relationships through graph-based analysis of architectural layouts [1]. Visibility Graph Analysis (VGA), as an extension of space syntax principles, provides a quantitative framework for measuring visual connectivity and spatial integration within architectural spaces.

Previous research has demonstrated that spatial openness influences occupant behavior, movement patterns, and psychological responses to built environments. Studies in environmental psychology have shown that perceived openness correlates with reduced stress levels, improved cognitive performance, and enhanced overall well-being. However, most existing research has been limited to small-scale case studies or controlled experimental settings, lacking the scale and diversity necessary to understand spatial openness patterns across entire urban regions.

1.2.2 Computer Vision and Spatial Analysis

Recent advances in computer vision and deep learning have opened new possibilities for automated spatial analysis. Semantic segmentation techniques enable the extraction of architectural elements from images, allowing for systematic analysis of interior compositions. Similarly, these deep-learning-based models have been successfully applied to recognize and classify various architectural features in floor plans, including walls, windows, floors, and ceilings. These technological developments create opportunities to process large-scale image datasets that would be impractical to analyze manually.

The integration of 2D image analysis with 3D spatial analysis recently draws more attentions in architectural research. While 2D analysis can capture visual qualities and material compositions, 3D analysis provides insights into spatial relationships and configurational properties. The combination of these approaches offers a more comprehensive understanding of spatial openness than either method alone.

1.2.3 Big Data Opportunities and Research Gaps

The emergence of big data analytics in housing research has revealed new patterns in residential preferences, market dynamics, and architectural trends. Online rental platforms generate vast amounts of data, including property specifications, pricing information, and visual documentation through interior images and floor plans. This data richness enables researchers to investigate questions about spatial quality and market valuation at unprecedented scales, creating opportunities that were previously impossible due to data limitations.

However, the potential for using big data to understand subjective spatial experiences remains largely unexplored, particularly in the context of rental housing markets that traditionally rely on rule-based tabular data without in-depth understanding of spatial qualities. While studies using conventional tabular data can achieve large scale, spatial openness research involving image analysis or human-operated software assessments has been limited to small samples, preventing generalization to broader urban contexts. Additionally, the tools

and methodologies for systematically processing and analyzing large-scale visual and spatial data in housing research are still developing, creating both opportunities and challenges for comprehensive spatial analysis.

1.3 Primary Research Objectives

This research aims to address the identified gaps through the following primary objectives:

1. **Develop a Comprehensive Methodology:** Create a multifaceted evaluation method for spatial openness that combines automated extraction of visual elements from interior images with floorplan semantic segmentation for VGA simulations, enabling large-scale analysis previously limited by manual assessment constraints.
2. **Large-Scale Analysis:** Conduct systematic analysis of spatial openness using large-scale rental housing data from Tokyo’s 23 wards.
3. **Temporal and Geographic Investigation:** Examine how spatial openness varies across construction periods and geographic regions within Tokyo’s 23 wards.
4. **Feature Dependency Analysis:** Investigate relationships between 2D visual elements and 3D spatial connectivity measures to identify key interactions contributing to spatial openness perception.
5. **Market Correlation Analysis:** Explore the relationships between spatial openness features, impression evaluations and rental costs.

1.4 Structure of the Thesis

This thesis is organized into six main chapters, each addressing specific aspects of spatial openness analysis:

Chapter 1: Introduction provides the research background, literature review, objectives, and methodology overview.

Chapter 2: Methodology presents detailed descriptions of the Lifull dataset, openness quantification methods including interior image-based 3D perception analysis and floor plan-based 2D VGA analysis, and statistical analysis frameworks.

Chapter 3: Results presents the primary findings, including temporal analysis of openness characteristics across construction decades and geographic distribution analysis across Tokyo's 23 wards.

Chapter 4: Comprehensive Openness Analysis provides in-depth analysis including regression analysis against rent costs and detailed analysis of openness features, with image examples and comparison between 2D and 3D openness measures.

Chapter 5: Discussion interprets the results, discusses implications for architectural design and urban planning, addresses limitations, and suggests future research directions.

Chapter 6: Conclusion summarizes the key findings, contributions, and practical implications of the research.

The thesis concludes with comprehensive appendices containing detailed technical specifications, additional statistical analyses, and supplementary materials that support the main findings.

This research provides a framework for analyzing spatial openness in residential environments, with potential applications in architectural design and urban planning.

Chapter 2

Methodology

This chapter presents the data filtering process, dataset characteristics, and methodology for quantifying spatial openness from interior images and floor plan data. The openness features extractions include the windows ratio, ceilings ratio, floors ratio, and walls ratio from interior images, together with tabular based attributes of properties. VGAs relies on the floorplan data. These features are used in subsequent temporal, spatial, and correlation analyses.

2.1 Overview of the LIFULL Real Estate Dataset

Our dataset comprises 4004 rental properties from Tokyo’s 23 wards (1960-present), filtered for image availability and completeness. The LIFULL dataset represents one of Japan’s largest real estate databases, providing comprehensive information about rental properties including interior images, floor plan data, and property specifications.

2.1.1 Dataset Characteristics

The dataset encompasses multiple categories of spatial openness attributes through interior images, floor plan data, and property specifications. Key characteristics include:

- **Temporal Coverage:** Properties spanning from 1960 to present, allowing for longitudinal analysis of spatial design trends
- **Geographic Scope:** Complete coverage of Tokyo’s 23 special wards, providing urban-scale spatial analysis capabilities
- **Data Completeness:** Properties filtered for availability of both interior images and floor plan data

2.1.2 Data Structure and Availability

The dataset provides multi-modal information for each property:

- **Interior Images:** High-resolution photographs of living spaces, where we focus on the living room, as shown in Figure 2.1.
- **Floor Plans:** Architectural drawings showing spatial layout and room configurations, as shown in Figure 2.2.
- **Property Specifications:** Detailed attributes including room size, building age, rent prices, and other basic tabular specs, as exemplified in Table 2.1. addresses.

Table 2.1: Sample of LIFULL dataset structure showing key property attributes

Property ID	Prefecture	City/Ward	...	Building Area	Rent Price
00026ec12fcea938...	Tokyo	Shibuya	...	51.0	88000
00040e134334f56c...	...	...	...	...	...

2.2 Definition of Openness

Spatial openness is typically expressed through the sense of visual connectivity. In residential rental markets, the 3D visual elements displayed in property photographs serve as the primary carriers of spatial impression and openness perception for potential tenants. The



Figure 2.1: Example of interior image from the LIFULL dataset.

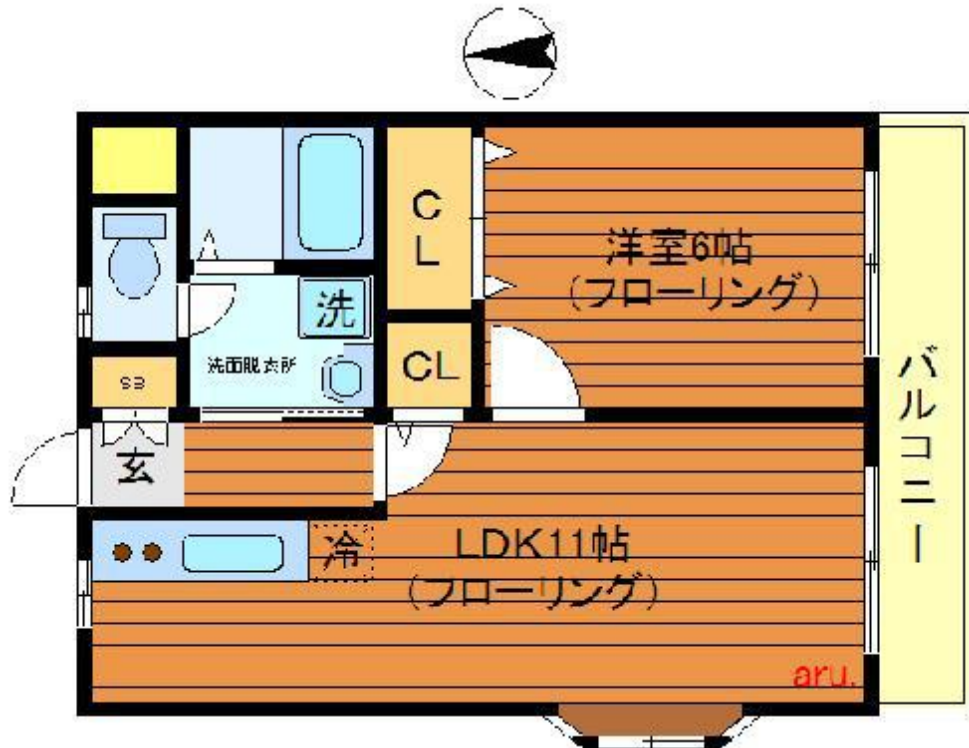


Figure 2.2: Example of floorplan image from the LIFULL dataset.

concept of openness in residential spaces encompasses several dimensions, with particular emphasis on the following:

- **Visual Connectivity:** The degree to which different areas of a space are visually connected as perceived through interior photographs, which numerically quantified by the VGA analysis.
- **Architectural Elements:** The appearance of windows, ceilings, floors, and walls in photos of the living rooms in the LIFULL dataset.

In the context of rental property advertising, these visual elements become the primary means through which spatial qualities are communicated to potential tenants, making their accurate quantification essential for understanding market dynamics.

2.3 Data Filtering and Cleaning

In order to effectively extract the required openness features, the data filtering and cleaning pipeline ensures data quality and consistency across the dataset. Multiple stages of filtering and validation are applied to maintain analytical reliability. The following sections detail the filtering process for interior images, floor plans, and property specifications, which are also illustrated as shown in Figure 2.3. The details of the methodologies of how to extract the openness features are demonstrated later after stating the filtering process.

2.3.1 Multi-Stage Data Filtering Process

Starting from a raw dataset of over 5 million properties, a systematic multi-stage filtering process is applied to ensure data quality and analytical reliability. The filtering pipeline reduces the dataset to approximately 4,000 final samples suitable for comprehensive openness analysis.

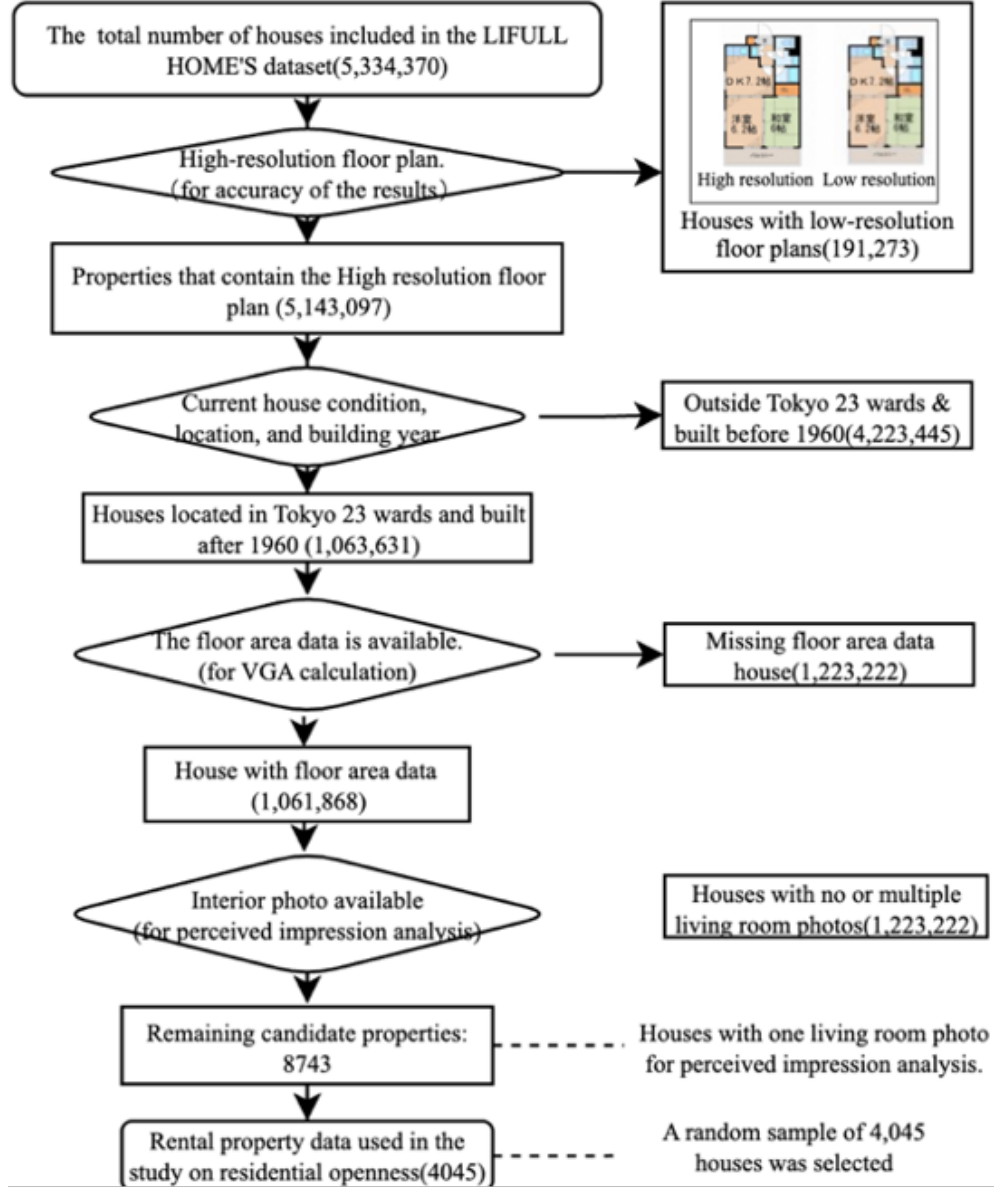


Figure 2.3: Data filtering and preprocessing pipeline showing the systematic approach to ensuring data quality and consistency across interior images, floor plans, and property specifications. The flowchart illustrates the multi-stage filtering process from raw data collection to the final integrated dataset.

Initial Data Selection

The first stage focuses on selecting properties with high-quality visual data:

- **High-Resolution Floor Plans:** Selection of properties with clear, high-resolution floor plan data only, excluding low-resolution variants to ensure adequate spatial detail for VGA analysis and improved semantic segmentation performance
- **Clear Interior Images:** Properties filtered to include only those with clear living room photographs available, ensuring consistent performance when extracting architectural element ratios through semantic segmentation
- **Geographic Constraint:** Properties limited to Tokyo's 23 wards with accurate location data

Property Specification Requirements

Properties must contain complete tabular specifications including:

- **Location Information:** Accurate geographic coordinates and ward designation within Tokyo's 23 wards
- **Construction Details:** Building construction year, building area, and property type specifications
- **Room Configuration:** Properties must contain room open space area information and at least 1DK room configuration for spatial analysis
- **Essential Attributes:** Complete set of required building-related information for comprehensive analysis

Quality Validation and Final Selection

The final filtering stage ensures analytical validity:

- **VGA Results Validation:** Properties filtered based on legitimate availability of VGA analysis results from floor plan processing
- **Architectural Element Detection:** Verification that semantic segmentation successfully identifies at least one of the key spatial elements (windows, ceilings, floors, or walls) within interior images
- **Multi-Modal Integration:** Final verification that properties contain all required data modalities (high-resolution floor plans, clear interior images, and complete specifications) for comprehensive openness analysis

This systematic filtering process ensures that the final dataset of approximately 4,000 properties maintains high data quality standards while providing sufficient sample size for robust statistical analysis. The following sections detail the extraction process of the openness features that have been already mentioned in the data filtering and cleaning workflow.

2.4 Openness Features Extractions

2.4.1 Visibility Graph Analysis (VGA) Methodology

A key metric for measuring spatial openness is the VGA (Visibility Graph Analysis) value from floor plans, which reflects spatial connectivity. The VGA methodology provides a quantitative approach to assess spatial relationships and visual connections within architectural layouts, complementing the impression-based analysis derived from interior photographs.

Traditionally, VGA analysis requires the transformation of optical floor plans into vectorized data formats that can be processed using specialized third-party software such as depthmapX [2]. This conversion process involves:

- **Digitization:** Converting raster floor plan images into vector-based geometric representations

- **Spatial Calibration:** Ensuring accurate scale and dimensional relationships in the vectorized format
- **Boundary Definition:** Precise delineation of walls, openings, and spatial boundaries for visibility calculations
- **Software Processing:** Utilization of specialized tools like depthmapX for comprehensive spatial analysis

However, this traditional approach presents significant scalability challenges when applied to large-scale datasets. Each floor plan requires individual attention for accurate conversion, and spatial, calibration, showing a bottleneck that limits its applicability to larger data samples due to the extensive human operations involved.

Mathematical Definition of VGA

Corresponding to the step 4 in the above section, the VGA value quantifies the degree of spatial integration and visual connectivity within a given floor plan layout. For a discretized spatial grid with N points, the visibility graph analysis computes connectivity measures based on line-of-sight relationships between grid points.

Mathematically, the VGA value at each point is defined as:

$$S(i) = \sum_{j=1}^N V_{ij} \quad (2.1)$$

where:

- $S(i)$ represents the visibility score at grid point i
- V_{ij} is the visibility indicator function defined as:

$$V_{ij} = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if point } j \text{ is visible from point } i \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases} \quad (2.2)$$

- N is the total number of grid points in the open space

The visibility determination between two points follows the isovist principle, where point j is considered visible from point i if the straight line connecting them does not intersect any wall boundaries in the floor plan.

This computation generates a VGA heatmap $\mathbf{S} = \{S(1), S(2), \dots, S(N)\}$ representing spatial connectivity throughout the floor plan. From this heatmap, summary statistics including mean (μ_S), standard deviation (σ_S), and percentiles are extracted as quantitative features characterizing spatial openness.

VGA Computation Process

To address traditional VGA limitations, we developed a computational workflow using optical floor plan images directly:

1. **Semantic Segmentation:** DeepLab-V3+ model [3] fine-tuned to classify walls, bedrooms, and living rooms
2. **Boundary Mask Creation:** Generate masks distinguishing walls from open spaces
3. **Physical Grid Generation:** Create uniform grid overlay on open space areas
4. **Isovist-based Visibility Calculation:** Calculate visibility for each grid point using the isovist method
5. **Statistical Extraction:** Extract statistical measures from the resulting heatmap to quantify spatial connectivity

This workflow is demonstrated in Figure 2.4.

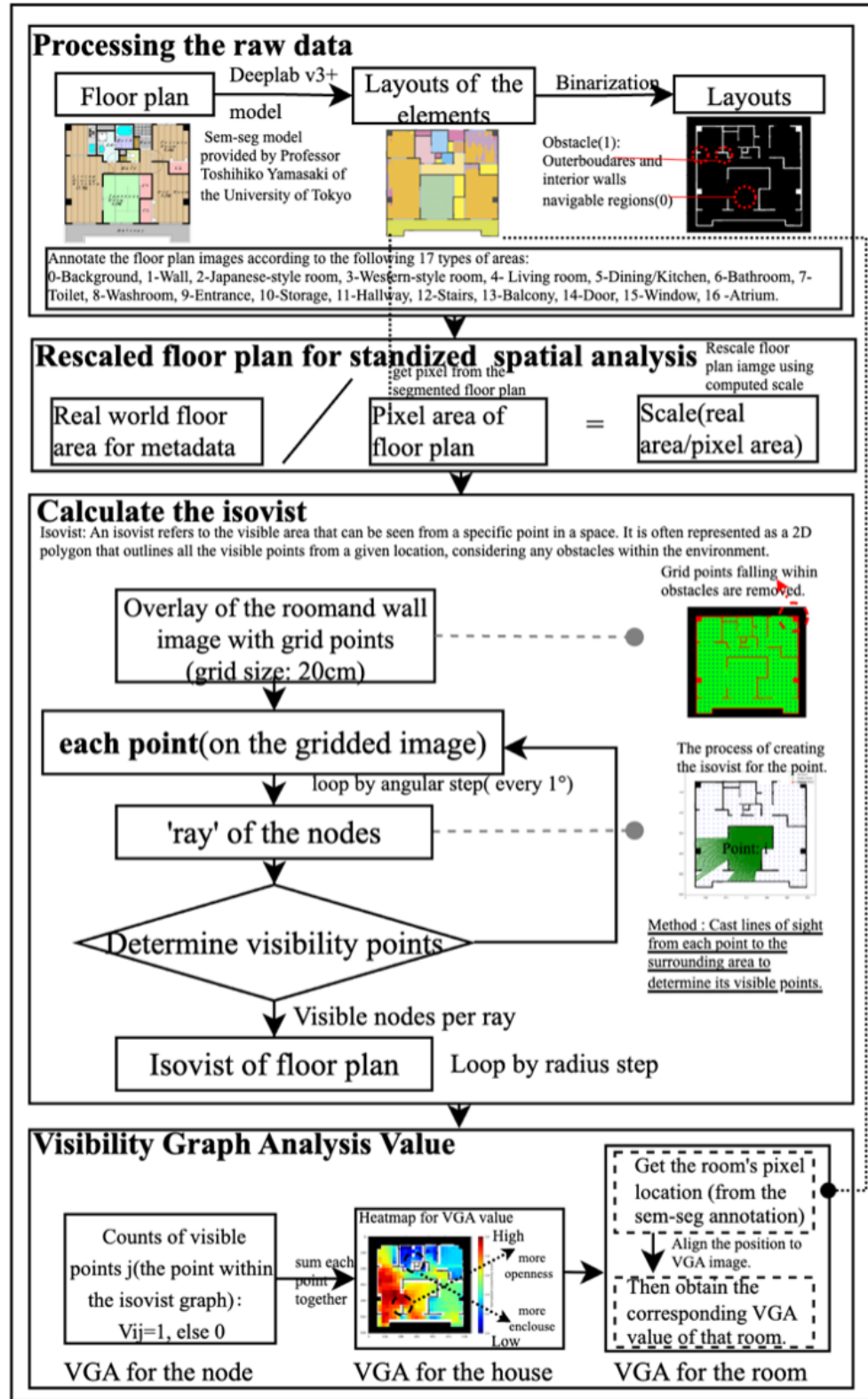


Figure 2.4: VGA computational workflow demonstrating the step-by-step process from semantic segmentation of floor plans to statistical analysis of spatial connectivity.

2.4.2 Architectural Element Ratios

Beyond VGA analysis, spatial openness is quantified through the analysis of key architectural elements extracted from interior images. In our studies, such ratios are calculated from the semantic segmentation results of living room images.

- **Windows Ratio:** Proportion of window area relative to total visible area, indicating natural light access and external connectivity
- **Ceilings Ratio:** Ceiling visibility and height perception contributing to vertical spatial openness
- **Floors Ratio:** Floor area visibility affecting spatial grounding and continuity
- **Walls Ratio:** Wall presence and configuration influencing spatial division and flow

These ratios are derived through semantic segmentation techniques applied to interior imagery, providing quantitative measures of spatial composition. However, such extraction may have intrinsic uncertainty due to the photo angles and standing positions collected from the website, but there is hardly any way to eliminate such issues when requesting to use large-scale data from Lifull which is not designed specifically for this study. The methodological details are demonstrated in the following sections.

Segmentation Model

The semantic segmentation employs a Mask2Former pre-trained model [4] optimized for architectural element recognition.

- **Model Selection:** Utilization of state-of-the-art segmentation architectures finetuned on interior image datasets
- **Element Categories:** Classification of pixels into windows, ceilings, floors, walls, and other architectural components

Pixel-wise Classification

The segmentation process generates pixel-wise masks for each architectural element:

1. **Image Preprocessing:** Standardization of input images for consistent processing, including resizing and batching.
2. **Segmentation Execution:** Application of the trained model to generate semantic masks
3. **Post-processing:** recover the original shape and resolutions of the semantic masks to properly calculate the ratios
4. **Refinement Process:** Iterative results by ensuring at least one of the four architectural elements (windows, ceilings, floors, walls) appears in the image.

The above workflow is demonstrated in Figure 2.5.

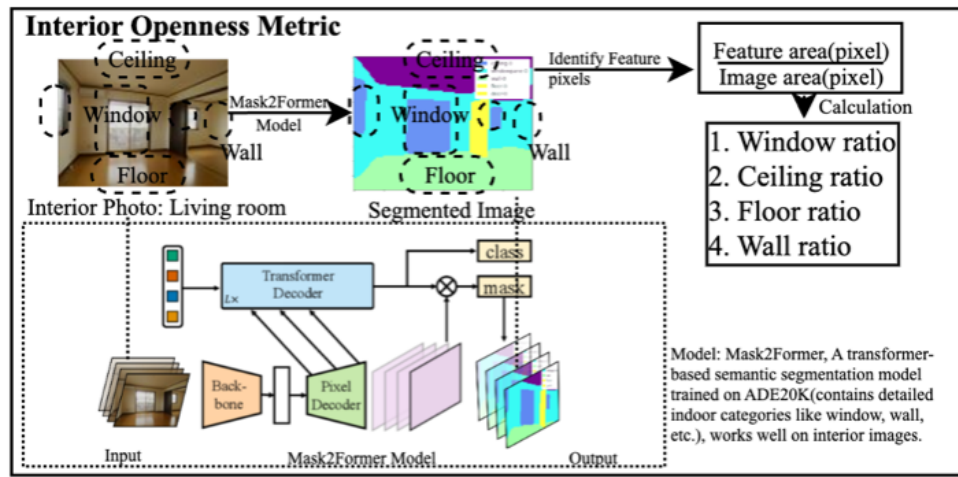


Figure 2.5: Semantic segmentation workflow for architectural element extraction from interior images, showing the process from input image through pixel-wise classification to architectural element ratio calculation.

Ratio Calculation

For each architectural element, the ratio is computed as:

$$\text{Element Ratio} = \frac{\text{Element Pixel Count}}{\text{Total Image Pixels}} \quad (2.3)$$

This provides a normalized measure of each element's presence within the visual field.

Having established the comprehensive data preparation pipeline and feature extraction methodologies, we now transition next chapter for the analytical framework designed to examine the relationship between extracted openness features and human perceptions of spatial openness. This analysis encompasses both individual feature impacts and their collective influence on openness evaluations.

Chapter 3

Results

This chapter presents the analysis results of openness indicators derived from the dataset of 4,004 residential properties in Tokyo’s 23 wards, which are selected through the data preparations and filtering process mentioned in the last part of Chapter 2. The findings are organized into three main areas: temporal trends across construction decades, geospatial distribution patterns, and correlation analysis between different indicators, where we hope to unveil some connections between those indicators and the outside factors to strengthen the understanding of how these indicators evolve through time and geographic spaces, and how they correlate with each other.

3.1 Temporal Trend of Openness Indicators

The impact of construction decade on the openness indicators such as mean value of VGA heatmap in whole property and living room is shown in Figure 3.1. To examine temporal trends, one-way ANOVA (analysis of variance) was conducted for each indicator between each decade group. After confirming the existence of the changes by significance, Tukey’s HSD test was applied for post-hoc comparisons to check the difference between each of the decades to understand how much they stand out compared to the others, where significant differences ($p < 0.05$) were found.

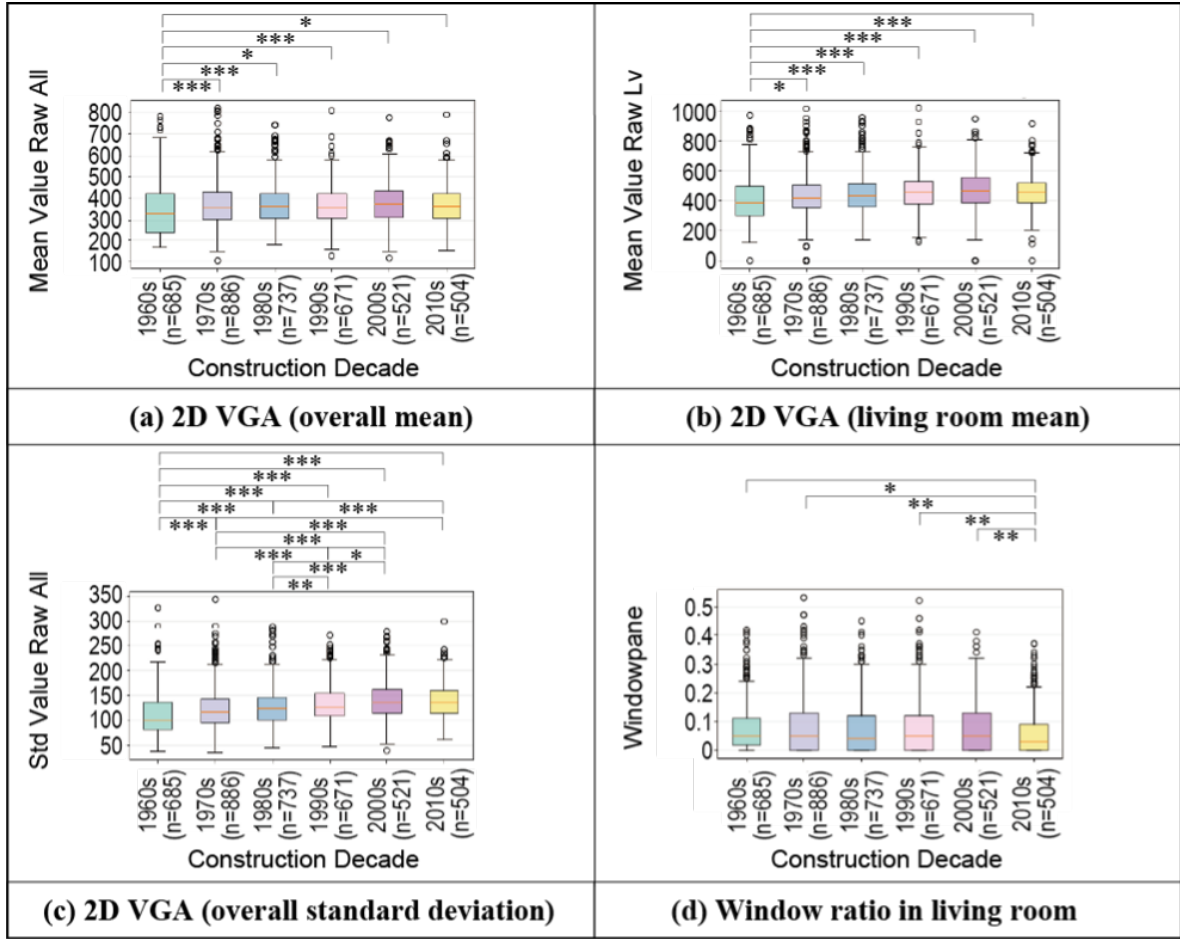


Figure 3.1: Temporal trends of openness indicators by construction decade showing (a) 2D openness scores for entire house, (b) 2D visibility scores for living rooms, (c) Standard deviation of 2D openness, and (d) 3D openness indicators (ceiling and window proportions). (***: 0.1%, **: 1%, *:5%, ***:10%)

Table 3.1 summarizes the one-way ANOVA results for each openness indicator across construction decades. The indicators show whether there are statistically significant differences between decades.

Indicator	F-statistic	P-value	Significance	η^2	Effect Size
Overall mean	5.87	0.000021	Yes	0.0073	Very small
Living room mean	17.15	0.000000	Yes	0.0210	Small
Overall std	51.86	0.000000	Yes	0.0609	Medium
Window ratio	3.63	0.002832	Yes	0.0045	Very small

Table 3.1: One-way ANOVA results for openness indicators across construction decades (n=4,004, 6 groups analyzed).

The temporal effect is observed in the overall standard deviation of openness ($\eta^2 = 0.0609$, medium effect), indicating that the variation in spatial layout within properties has changed substantially over time. Living room mean openness shows a small but notable effect ($\eta^2 = 0.0210$), while overall mean openness and window ratio demonstrate very small effects despite statistical significance. To understand the temporal changes of each indicator, the following sections discuss the results of each indicator in more detail.

3.1.1 Pairwise Analysis of Temporal Changes for Each Indicator

We conducted Tukey’s HSD post-hoc tests for these indicators. This analysis reveals which specific decades differ significantly from each other and helps identify the direction and magnitude of changes over time.

Mean VGA of whole property

As shown in Table 3.2, this pattern reveals a clear temporal discontinuity: the 1960s properties demonstrate consistently higher mean VGA values with differences ranging from 4.88% to 6.53% compared to all subsequent decades. The effect sizes are generally small to negligible, but the consistent direction of differences suggests a meaningful architectural shift. After the 1970s, spatial openness characteristics remained roughly stable, with all pairwise

Comparison	Mean Diff.	% Diff.	Cohen's d	Effect Size	P-value	Sig.
1960s vs 1970s	-24.39	-6.49%	-0.2139	Small	0.0000	Yes
1960s vs 1980s	-21.33	-5.73%	-0.1930	Negligible	0.0007	Yes
1960s vs 1990s	-18.03	-4.88%	-0.1663	Negligible	0.0107	Yes
1960s vs 2000s	-24.53	-6.53%	-0.2159	Small	0.0003	Yes
1960s vs 2010s	-19.00	-5.13%	-0.1705	Negligible	0.0141	Yes
1970s vs 1980s	+3.06	+0.82%	+0.0313	Negligible	0.9897	No
1970s vs 1990s	+6.36	+1.72%	+0.0670	Negligible	0.8107	No
1970s vs 2000s	-0.14	-0.04%	-0.0014	Negligible	1.0000	No
1970s vs 2010s	+5.39	+1.46%	+0.0560	Negligible	0.9264	No
1980s vs 1990s	+3.30	+0.89%	+0.0374	Negligible	0.9893	No
1980s vs 2000s	-3.20	-0.85%	-0.0349	Negligible	0.9933	No
1980s vs 2010s	+2.33	+0.63%	+0.0262	Negligible	0.9986	No
1990s vs 2000s	-6.50	-1.73%	-0.0741	Negligible	0.8725	No
1990s vs 2010s	-0.97	-0.26%	-0.0115	Negligible	1.0000	No
2000s vs 2010s	+5.53	+1.49%	+0.0626	Negligible	0.9485	No

Table 3.2: Pairwise comparisons (Tukey HSD) for mean VGA of whole property across construction decades, showing mean differences, effect sizes, and statistical significance.

differences being non-significant. This suggests that the significant shift in spatial design philosophy occurred between the 1960s and 1970s, likely reflecting the transition from post-war reconstruction architectural practices to more standardized residential design approaches that have persisted through the 2010s.

Mean VGA of living room

As shown in Table 3.3, the analysis reveals a clear temporal trend in living room openness: properties built in the 1960s consistently demonstrate higher VGA values compared to all subsequent decades, with differences ranging from 4.37% (vs. 1970s) to 11.72% (vs. 2000s). This decline shows a progressive pattern through the 1980s, 1990s, and 2000s, with effect sizes increasing from negligible to small. Notably, the 2010s show no significant difference from the 1990s, suggesting a stabilization of living room design characteristics since the 1990s. The 1970s properties show significantly lower openness compared to later decades (1990s, 2000s, 2010s), while the 1980s only differ significantly from the 2000s. This pattern suggests that living room design became progressively more compartmentalized from the 1960s through

Comparison	Mean Diff.	% Diff.	Cohen's d	Effect Size	P-value	Sig.
1960s vs 1970s	-18.79	-4.37%	-0.1344	Negligible	0.0400	Yes
1960s vs 1980s	-31.80	-7.18%	-0.2350	Small	0.0000	Yes
1960s vs 1990s	-46.57	-10.18%	-0.3495	Small	0.0000	Yes
1960s vs 2000s	-54.53	-11.72%	-0.3888	Small	0.0000	Yes
1960s vs 2010s	-46.48	-10.16%	-0.3477	Small	0.0000	Yes
1970s vs 1980s	-13.01	-2.94%	-0.1035	Negligible	0.3031	No
1970s vs 1990s	-27.79	-6.07%	-0.2252	Small	0.0002	Yes
1970s vs 2000s	-35.74	-7.68%	-0.2775	Small	0.0000	Yes
1970s vs 2010s	-27.70	-6.05%	-0.2261	Small	0.0012	Yes
1980s vs 1990s	-14.77	-3.23%	-0.1270	Negligible	0.2396	No
1980s vs 2000s	-22.73	-4.88%	-0.1865	Negligible	0.0204	Yes
1980s vs 2010s	-14.68	-3.21%	-0.1285	Negligible	0.3337	No
1990s vs 2000s	-7.96	-1.71%	-0.0672	Negligible	0.8890	No
1990s vs 2010s	+0.09	+0.02%	+0.0008	Negligible	1.0000	No
2000s vs 2010s	+8.05	+1.76%	+0.0691	Negligible	0.9108	No

Table 3.3: Pairwise comparisons (Tukey HSD) for mean VGA of living room across construction decades, showing mean differences, effect sizes, and statistical significance.

the 2000s, potentially reflecting changing privacy preferences, space optimization strategies, or regulatory changes in residential architecture.

Standard deviation of VGA of whole property

As shown in Table 3.4, the analysis reveals a strong temporal trend in spatial variability: properties built in the 1960s consistently show higher VGA standard deviation compared to all subsequent decades, with differences ranging from 7.21% (vs. 1970s) to 19.52% (vs. 2000s). This decline indicates a progressive reduction in spatial diversity within properties, suggesting that modern residential designs feature more functionally specialized rooms with reduced visual accessibility due to more detailed room design. The effect sizes progressively increase from small (1970s-1980s comparisons) to medium (1990s onwards comparisons with 1960s), indicating that this spatial compartmentalization became more pronounced over time. Notably, the 1990s and 2010s show no significant difference, and the 2000s and 2010s are virtually identical, suggesting that spatial compartmentalization reached a plateau by the 1990s. This pattern likely reflects the evolution toward more compartmentalized floor

Comparison	Mean Diff.	% Diff.	Cohen's d	Effect Size	P-value	Sig.
1960s vs 1970s	-8.70	-7.21%	-0.2204	Small	0.0001	Yes
1960s vs 1980s	-13.77	-10.95%	-0.3556	Small	0.0000	Yes
1960s vs 1990s	-20.88	-15.71%	-0.5382	Medium	0.0000	Yes
1960s vs 2000s	-27.17	-19.52%	-0.6740	Medium	0.0000	Yes
1960s vs 2010s	-26.18	-18.94%	-0.6851	Medium	0.0000	Yes
1970s vs 1980s	-5.07	-4.03%	-0.1392	Negligible	0.0654	No
1970s vs 1990s	-12.17	-9.16%	-0.3347	Small	0.0000	Yes
1970s vs 2000s	-18.47	-13.27%	-0.4924	Small	0.0000	Yes
1970s vs 2010s	-17.47	-12.64%	-0.4917	Small	0.0000	Yes
1980s vs 1990s	-7.11	-5.35%	-0.2019	Small	0.0043	Yes
1980s vs 2000s	-13.40	-9.63%	-0.3686	Small	0.0000	Yes
1980s vs 2010s	-12.41	-8.98%	-0.3644	Small	0.0000	Yes
1990s vs 2000s	-6.30	-4.52%	-0.1734	Negligible	0.0411	Yes
1990s vs 2010s	-5.30	-3.83%	-0.1566	Negligible	0.1444	No
2000s vs 2010s	+1.00	+0.72%	+0.0283	Negligible	0.9981	No

Table 3.4: Pairwise comparisons (Tukey HSD) for standard deviation of VGA of whole property across construction decades, showing mean differences, effect sizes, and statistical significance.

plans with increased room specialization, where living areas, bedrooms, and other functional spaces became more clearly delineated and visually separated, contrasting with the more spatially integrated and varied arrangements characteristic of 1960s housing.

Window Ratio

As shown in Table 3.5, the post-hoc analysis reveals a clear temporal pattern: the 2010s properties show significantly higher window ratios compared to the 1960s, 1970s, 1990s, and 2000s, with effect sizes ranging from negligible to small. The 2010s demonstrate the highest window proportions, with increases of 26.84% compared to the 1960s, 29.51% compared to the 1970s, 24.12% compared to the 1990s, and 30.54% compared to the 2000s. This increase in window proportions in recent constructions likely reflects modern design preferences emphasizing natural light, improved construction technologies allowing for larger window installations, and changing lifestyle preferences that value bright, well-lit living spaces. This trend may also reflect advances in window technology, improved insulation materials, and

Comparison	Mean Diff.	% Diff.	Cohen's d	Effect Size	P-value	Sig.
1960s vs 1970s	-0.0017	-2.06%	-0.0189	Negligible	0.9991	No
1960s vs 1980s	+0.0055	+7.49%	+0.0652	Negligible	0.8472	No
1960s vs 1990s	+0.0017	+2.19%	+0.0195	Negligible	0.9993	No
1960s vs 2000s	-0.0023	-2.84%	-0.0273	Negligible	0.9977	No
1960s vs 2010s	+0.0166	+26.84%	+0.2104	Small	0.0155	Yes
1970s vs 1980s	+0.0071	+9.76%	+0.0785	Negligible	0.5757	No
1970s vs 1990s	+0.0033	+4.34%	+0.0359	Negligible	0.9761	No
1970s vs 2000s	-0.0006	-0.79%	-0.0069	Negligible	1.0000	No
1970s vs 2010s	+0.0183	+29.51%	+0.2075	Small	0.0025	Yes
1980s vs 1990s	-0.0038	-4.93%	-0.0422	Negligible	0.9655	No
1980s vs 2000s	-0.0078	-9.61%	-0.0880	Negligible	0.6312	No
1980s vs 2010s	+0.0111	+18.00%	+0.1330	Negligible	0.2362	No
1990s vs 2000s	-0.0040	-4.92%	-0.0437	Negligible	0.9712	No
1990s vs 2010s	+0.0149	+24.12%	+0.1729	Negligible	0.0441	Yes
2000s vs 2010s	+0.0189	+30.54%	+0.2257	Small	0.0072	Yes

Table 3.5: Pairwise comparisons (Tukey HSD) for window ratio across construction decades, showing mean differences, effect sizes, and statistical significance.

energy-efficient glass that make larger windows more practical from both comfort and energy efficiency perspectives.

3.2 Geospatial Distribution of Openness Indicators

Figure 3.2 shows the geospatial distribution of representative openness indicators in Tokyo's 23 wards. Of the 4,004 properties analyzed, approximately 3,800 properties with postal code-level address information were selected for geospatial analysis. Here, we discuss the results obtained using a spatial interpolation method called kriging.

The spatial patterns of openness represented by overall and living room VGA mean values, rent, construction year, and floor area are partially correlated, indicating that urban redevelopment and housing design trends are manifesting geographically. This correlation suggests that certain areas of Tokyo have experienced similar development and design philosophies.

The ratio of living room windows tends to be high in center areas (6d). This pattern is

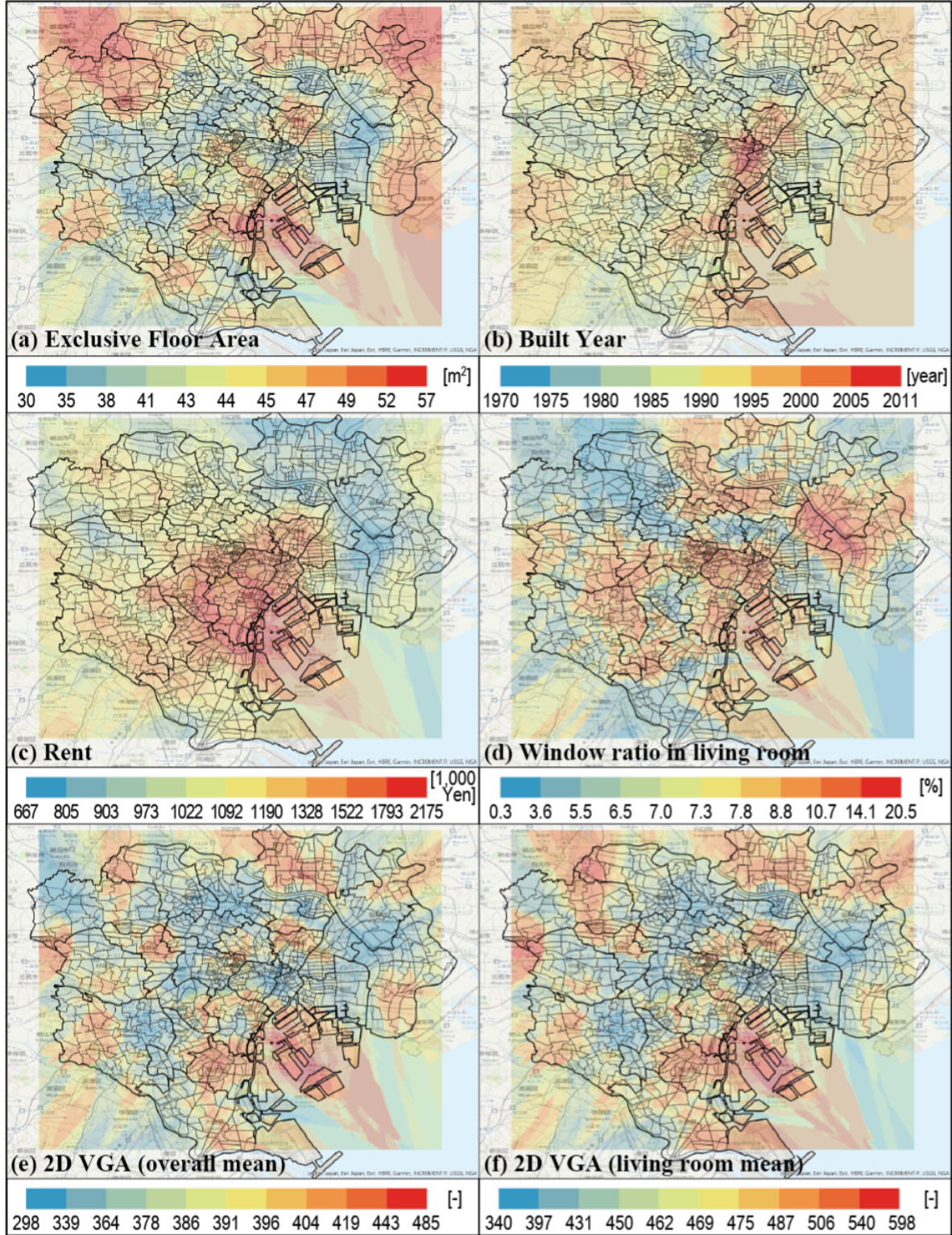


Figure 3.2: Geospatial distribution maps showing: (a) Property rent levels, (b) Construction year distribution, (c) Floor area patterns, (d) Living room window ratios, (e) 2D openness for living rooms, and (f) 2D openness for entire houses.

possible to be influenced by the existence of high-rise apartments where views are valued. In central Tokyo, the premium on natural light and city views drives building constructors to increase the window space, especially in living rooms where residents spend most of their waking hours. The emphasis on windows in these areas also reflects the higher property values that can justify the additional costs of better views.

Areas with high VGA values are scattered throughout the southern part of the city center and other areas (6e and 6f). This scattered distribution suggests that open floor plans are not concentrated in any single district but rather reflect various factors including development timing, target demographics, and local planning regulations. The southern areas may benefit from better sunlight exposure, making open layouts more attractive and practical.

The relatively low VGA values in suburban areas are thought to be influenced by housing types with many individual rooms and housing complexes. Suburban housing often reflects traditional Japanese housing preferences that prioritize privacy and clearly defined spaces for different activities. These areas may also have more families with children, where separated rooms serve practical purposes for study, sleep, and family activities.

3.3 Correlation Analysis Among Indicators and with Rent and Others

Figure 3.3 shows the correlation between 2D/3D openness indicators, between openness indicators and rent, along with other indicators. This analysis helps us understand how different aspects of spatial openness relate to each other and to market factors.

No clear correlation was found between the 2D openness indicator and the 3D openness indicator, namely the window ratio VS. the VGA mean value of the properties (7a). This finding suggests that floor plan openness and vertical spatial characteristics operate independently in residential design. A house might have an open floor plan but low window

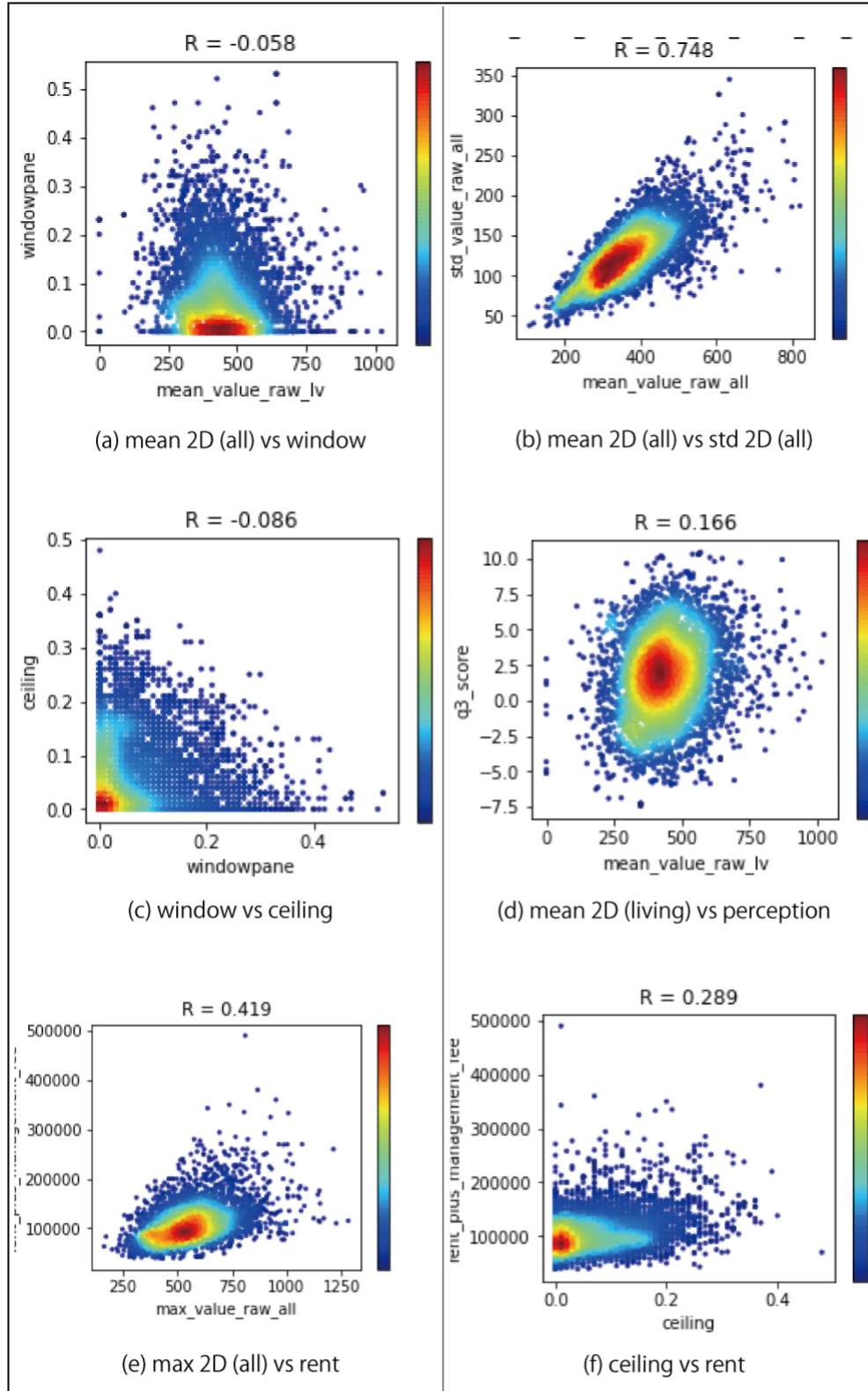


Figure 3.3: Correlation analysis showing: (a) 2D vs 3D openness indicators, (b) Mean vs standard deviation of 2D openness, (c) Relationships among 3D openness indicators, (d) 2D openness vs impression evaluation scores, and (e) Openness indicators vs rent levels.

ratio, or conversely, have separated rooms but high ceilings and large windows. This independence indicates that designers and residents can achieve different types of openness through various design strategies.

On the other hand, a high correlation was confirmed between the mean value and standard deviation of 2D openness (7b). This relationship indicates that properties with higher average 2D openness also tend to have greater variation in openness across different spaces. This pattern makes sense from a design perspective, as houses with very open living areas often offers larger area and maintain more functionality focused, enclosed spaces for perhaps multiple bedrooms and bathrooms, creating a higher deviations in VGA values between small rooms and large rooms.

The 3D openness indicators were generally complementary to each other (7c). This complementary relationship suggests that different vertical spatial elements work together to create the overall sense of openness in interior spaces. For example, rooms with smaller windows might compensate with higher ceilings or more visible ceiling area to maintain a sense of spaciousness.

Additionally, there was a tendency for properties with higher openness to have higher rent price (7e). This positive correlation indicates that spatial openness is valued in the rental market and commands a premium. Tenants appear willing to pay more for properties that offer better visual connectivity, more natural light, and a greater sense of space. This market preference validates the importance of openness as a design consideration for rental properties.

Here in (d), we introduce a impression evaluation score that presents the user perception goodness from one of the previous research in our lab, which utilizes a trained feature extraction network to extract 1D feature vector from interior images, then input to a preference scoring model that was trained over a set of user annotated dataset. The detailed information can refer to this report [5]. With these impression evaluation scores calculated for all 4,004 properties, we can also investigate the correlation between these scores and 2D

openness indicators for living rooms. Comparing these scores with 2D openness indicators for living rooms, there was almost no correlation between them (7d), showing the clear perception gap between a 2D floorplan image and the actual living room photograph to users' eyes.

While spatial openness is one of the elements that characterize a space, this result suggests that other elements such as interior design and furniture may have a greater influence on impressions. The lack of correlation between objective openness measures and subjective impressions reveals the complexity of how people perceive and evaluate living spaces. Factors such as color schemes, lighting quality, furniture style and arrangement, cleanliness, and overall aesthetic appeal may play more significant roles in forming positive impressions than the geometric properties of the space itself.

3.4 Predictive Modeling of Rental Prices

To further investigate the relationship between openness indicators and market value, we developed multivariate linear regression models to fit the rental prices using the various openness indicators. This analysis aims to quantify the economic impact of spatial openness characteristics and identify which specific indicators contribute most significantly to rental price determination.

Fitting with Unselected Features

The predictive modeling process involved selecting relevant features from our comprehensive set of openness indicators. Table 3.6 presents the features for the regression model, categorized by their measurement type and spatial scope.

After performing the initial regression fit using these features, we obtained the regression results shown in Figure 3.4. The model achieved an R^2 of 0.3, indicating moderate predictive power in explaining rental price variance through our openness indicators. Residual analysis

Category	Feature	Description
Whole Property 2D	min_value_raw_all	Minimum VGA value across all spaces
	max_value_raw_all	Maximum VGA value across all spaces
	mean_value_raw_all	Average VGA value across all spaces
	std_value_raw_all	Standard deviation of VGA values
Living Room 2D	mean_value_raw_lv	Average VGA value in living room
	min_value_raw_lv	Minimum VGA value in living room
	max_value_raw_lv	Maximum VGA value in living room
	std_value_raw_lv	Standard deviation of VGA in living room
3D Openness	windowpane	Proportion of window area
	floor	Proportion of visible floor area
	ceiling	Proportion of visible ceiling area
	wall	Proportion of visible wall area

Table 3.6: Selected features for rental price prediction model, organized by measurement category and spatial scope.

revealed no clear imbalance in the error distribution, suggesting negligible bias in the linear model fit. The results illustrate the predictive performance and feature importance of our openness indicators for rental price prediction.

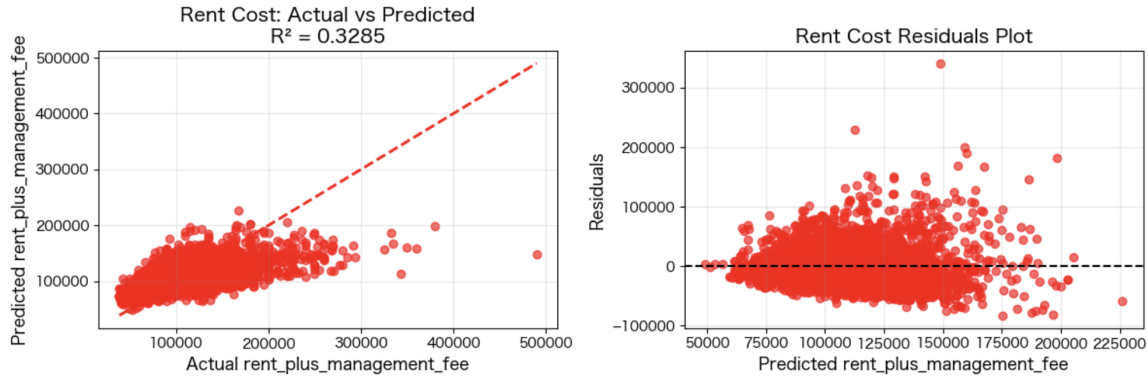


Figure 3.4: Predictive performance and feature importance analysis for rental price prediction using openness indicators. The figure shows R^2 scores and relative importance rankings of different spatial openness measures in determining rental prices.

Correlation and VIF Checks to Reduce Multicollinearity

The correlations within the features is displayed in Figure 3.5, and the feature importance is displayed in Figure 3.6.

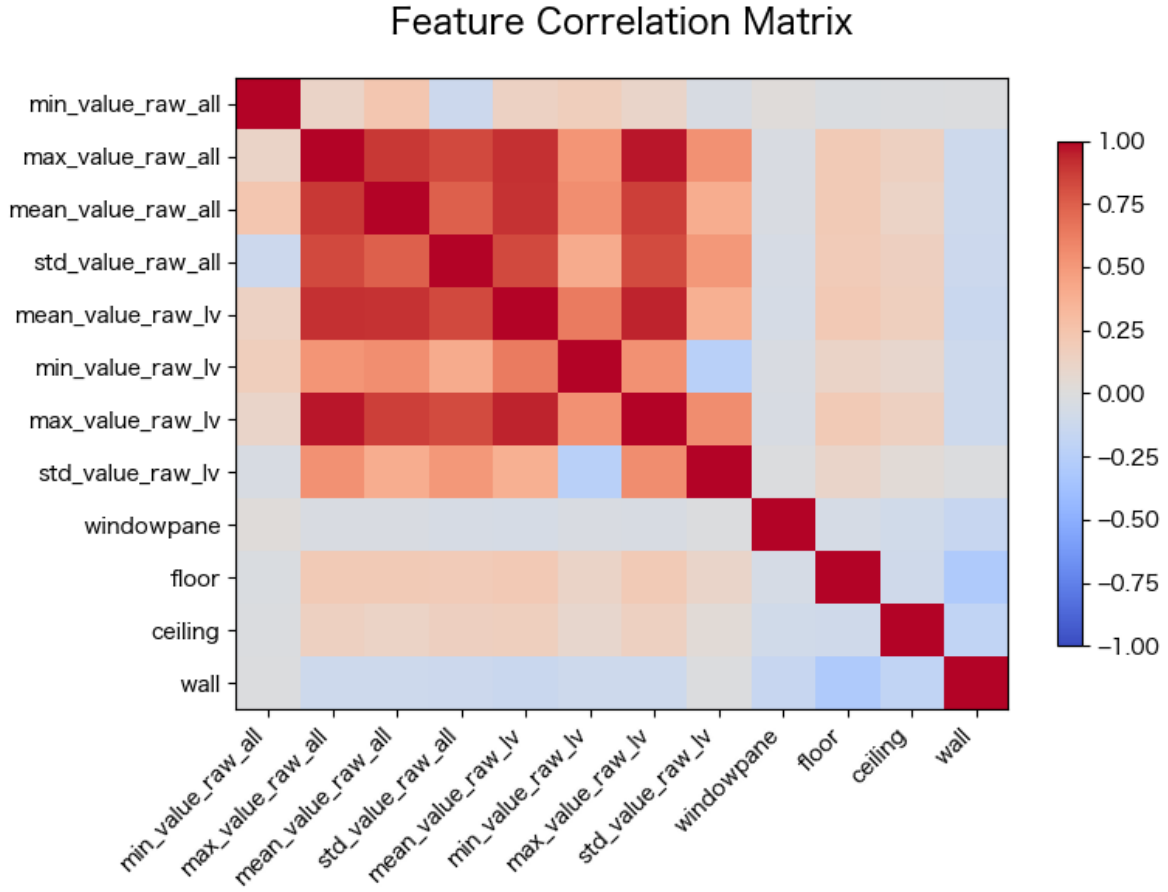


Figure 3.5: Predictive performance of openness indicators for rental price prediction showing R^2 scores and feature importance rankings. The model demonstrates the relative contribution of different spatial openness measures to rental price determination.

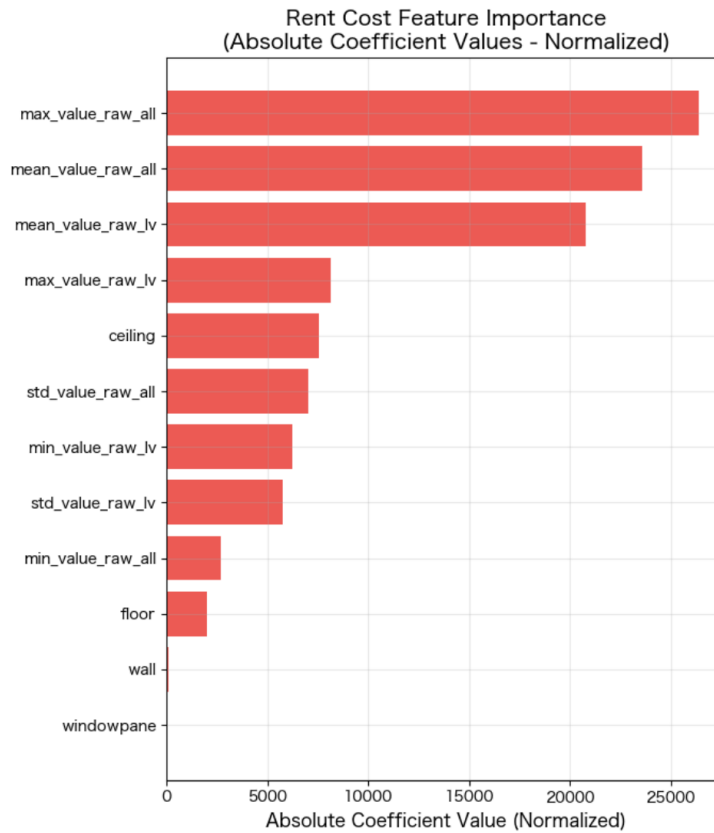


Figure 3.6: Correlation matrix and feature importance analysis for the 12 selected openness indicators used in rental price prediction. The heatmap shows inter-feature correlations while the importance scores indicate each feature's contribution to the predictive model.

To address potential multicollinearity issues observed in the feature correlation analysis, we conducted Variance Inflation Factor (VIF) checks and employed stepwise feature selection to identify the optimal feature subset while maintaining model performance. High correlation between certain features suggested redundancy that could be eliminated without significant loss in predictive power.

The VIF analysis revealed several features with high multicollinearity ($VIF > 5$), particularly among the 2D openness measures within the same spatial scope, as shown in Table 3.7.

Feature	VIF	Status
min_value_raw_all	1.35	Low
max_value_raw_all	28.16	High
mean_value_raw_all	8.34	Moderate
std_value_raw_all	5.58	Moderate
min_value_raw_lv	3.40	Low
max_value_raw_lv	37.94	High
std_value_raw_lv	3.63	Low
mean_value_raw_lv	18.29	High
windowpane	1.06	Low
floor	1.21	Low
ceiling	1.13	Low
wall	1.23	Low

Table 3.7: Variance Inflation Factor (VIF) for multicollinearity assessment, $VIF > 10$: High, $VIF > 5$: Moderate, $VIF < 5$: Low

Stepwise Feature Selection for Optimal Model

Based on the VIF analysis results, we selected the 7 features highlighted in red in Table 3.7 with acceptable multicollinearity levels ($VIF < 10$) for the final model. These selected fea-

tures include: `min_value_raw_all`, `max_value_raw_all`, `mean_value_raw_all`, `std_value_raw_all`, `std_value_raw_lv`, and `ceiling`. Notably, all the VGA-based openness indicators from whole properties (`min_value_raw_all`, `max_value_raw_all`, `mean_value_raw_all`, `std_value_raw_all`) were retained after the selection, demonstrating their independence from each other and their distinct contributions to model performance. This refined feature set eliminated the most problematic variables while maintaining strong predictive performance. The results of this 7-feature model are shown in Figure 3.7, demonstrating that the reduced model maintains comparable performance. The updated feature importance is shown in Figure 3.8.

Interpretation of Feature Importance

The overall VGA values of properties demonstrate high importance because they capture the complete spatial connectivity and accessibility patterns which directly relates to the perceived spaciousness and flow that tenants value. In contrast, the living room-specific features show relatively low importance, perhaps due to their partial representation of the property’s overall spatial quality. For 3D openness indicators, only `ceiling` shows relatively good importance, possibly due to its strong correlation with perceived vertical spaciousness. However, we must understand that rent price is a very complicated target to predict and is certainly not impacted solely by our selected features. Therefore, our observations can only serve as potential insights to link the relationship between price and our openness indicators, not aiming to comprehensively predict the rent price under any assumption.

3.5 Visual Validation of Openness Indicators

To validate the reliability and interpretability of our openness indicators, we present a visual comparison of properties with varying openness characteristics. This section showcases floor plans and living room images from properties with high, medium, and low openness scores across different indicators.

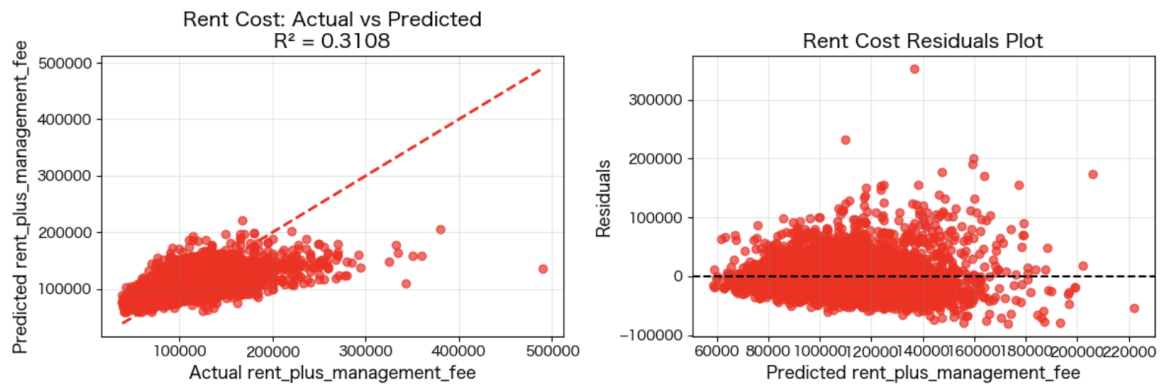


Figure 3.7: Predictive performance of with reduced features

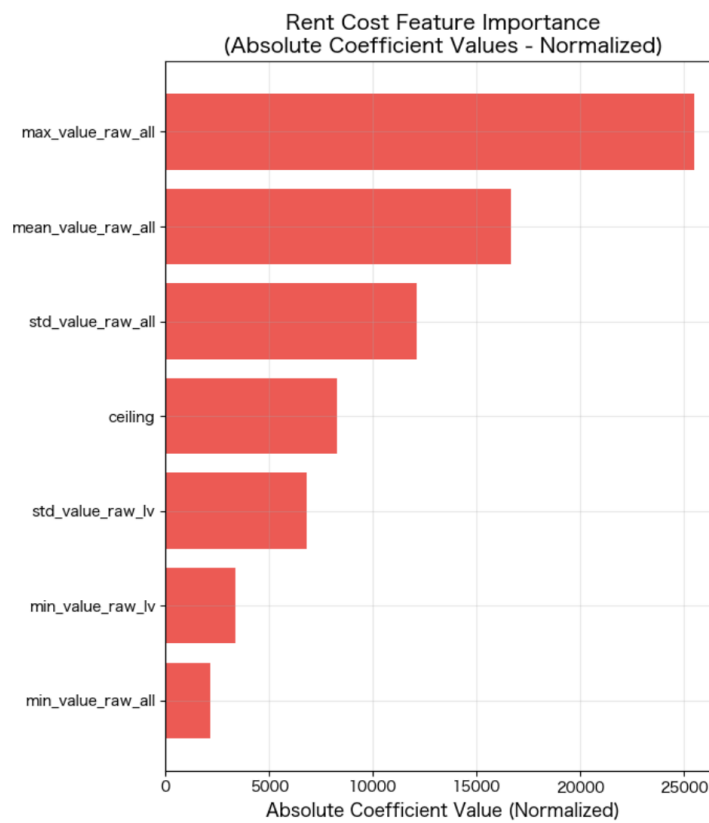


Figure 3.8: Feature importance of the 7 selected features

The visual examples demonstrate how the quantitative measures correspond to observable spatial characteristics, providing intuitive understanding of what the numerical indicators represent in actual residential spaces. This validation helps bridge the gap between computational analysis and human perception of spatial openness.

Chapter 4

Influence of Age and Geographic Factors

- 4.1 Impact of Building Age on Openness-Impression Relationship
- 4.2 Comparative Analysis Across Geographic Areas
- 4.3 Spatial Visualization and Cluster Analysis

Chapter 5

Correlation Analysis Between Subjective Impressions and Openness

5.1 Impression Score Outputs and Interpretation

5.2 Correlation Between Openness Features and Subjective Impressions

5.3 Case Studies and Visual Comparisons

Chapter 6

Conclusion and Future Work

6.1 Summary of Findings and Contributions

6.2 Limitations and Sources of Error

6.3 Future Research Directions

Appendix A

An example of an appendix

This is what an appendix looks like!

Appendix B

Session Protocol

Zigzag Session Protocol

Samuel Meijer

March 2019

1 Introduction and Motivation

In order to understand how to steer a boat, it is necessary to understand how the boat responds to rudder inputs. The methods used in this protocol to measure the response of the boat are adapted from the methods presented in the work of Abkowitz¹ and Lewis².

2 Description

The goal of this session is to perform the zigzag maneuver (also known as *Kempf Overshoot* or “Z” maneuver³) to derive a relationship between the rudder angle, δ , and the rate of rotation of the boat, $\dot{\theta}$. This involves steering the boat in a controlled zigzag pattern.

3 Procedure

The maneuver is conducted as follows:
while rowing,

1. the boat is set travelling straight (rudder angle, $\delta = 0$)
2. the rudder is turned to a set angle ($\delta = \delta_1$) for a set period of time, τ (until the change of rate of rotation, $\dot{\theta}$, is equal to zero [$\dot{\theta} = 0$])
3. the rudder is turned to a set angle in the opposite direction ($\delta = -\delta_1$)

Steps 2 and 3 are repeated a number of times the same rudder angles, δ_1 and the same length of time for the rate of rotation to approach zero, τ .

For this session, the rudder position will be controlled **automatically** by a servo running a programmed course. In this case, $\tau = 15s$ and $\delta_1 = -\delta_2 = 20^\circ$.

¹Martin A. Abkowitz. *Measurement of Ship Hydrodynamic Coefficients in Maneuvering From Simple Trials During Regular Operations*. M.I.T. Department of Ocean Engineering, Cambridge, November 1984.

²Edward V. Lewis. *Principles of naval architecture*. Society of Naval Architects and Marine Engineers, Jersey City, 2nd revision (3rd ed.) 1988.

³Ibid.

Appendix C

Software

```
1 #include <Wire.h>
2 #include <Adafruit_Sensor.h>
3 #include <Adafruit_BNO055.h>
4 #include <utility/imumaths.h>
5 #include <Adafruit_GPS.h>
6 #include <SPI.h>
7 #include <SD.h>
8 #include <Servo.h>
9 #include <math.h>
10 #include "Filter.h"
11
12 /* This driver reads raw data from the BNO055, Potentiometer and
    GPS
13
14     Connections for ADALOGGER
15     =====
16
```

```

17 Potentiometer
18 _____
19 Connect one side to VCC
20 Connect other to common ground
21 Connect Middle to A0
22
23 GPS
24 _____
25 Connect VIN to VCC
26 Connect GROUND to common ground
27 Connect GPS TX to RX1 (D0)
28 Connect GPS RX to TX1 (D1)
29
30 */
31
32 /*****/
33 /*BNO055 (orientation) setup, variables and def'n*/
34 /*****/
35 // Sample delay
36 const float SAMPLERATE = 10;
37 // Setup for the differentiation variables
38 double psierror = 0;
39 double dt = 0;
40 double dpsierror_dt = 0;
41 double previouspsierror = 0;

```

Bibliography

- [1] B. Hillier, J. Hanson, and H. Graham, “Ideas are in things: an application of the space syntax method to discovering house genotypes,” *Environment and Planning B: planning and design*, vol. 14, no. 4, pp. 363–385, 1987.
- [2] A. Turner, “Depthmap: a program to perform visibility graph analysis,” in *Proceedings of the 3rd international symposium on space syntax*, vol. 31, pp. 31–12, Citeseer, 2001.
- [3] Y. Liu, X. Bai, J. Wang, G. Li, J. Li, and Z. Lv, “Image semantic segmentation approach based on deeplabv3 plus network with an attention mechanism,” *Engineering Applications of Artificial Intelligence*, vol. 127, p. 107260, 2024.
- [4] B. Cheng, I. Misra, A. G. Schwing, A. Kirillov, and R. Girdhar, “Masked-attention mask transformer for universal image segmentation,” in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF conference on computer vision and pattern recognition*, pp. 1290–1299, 2022.
- [5] 沖拓弥, 下村隼生, and 山崎俊彦, “賃貸物件ビッグデータとアンケートに基づく子育て世帯の住宅選好分析 その1：アンケートと住宅選好予測モデルの概要,” in 日本建築学会大会学術講演梗概集, 情報システム技術, pp. 29–30, 日本建築学会, September 2023.